UltraBERT-JEV: Encoder models for System One Applications

Astarag Mohapatra

Independent Researcher

astarag2843@gmail.com

November 11, 2026

Abstract

A decision model picks one answer from a set of options in a single forward pass, without writing out its reasoning. It is cheap enough to run on every item in a large pipeline, for example to grade, filter or route text. This technical report compares recipes for fine-tuning encoder-style decision models. We fine-tune UltraBERT-380M [32], an encoder pretrained with masked language modelling, with one mask per option. We compare four recipes: a softmax over each option's "yes" logit, and three normalisations of "yes" minus "no": a softmax, a sigmoid divided by the sum over options as in the expert gate of DeepSeek-V3 [14], and a square-root softplus divided by the sum. Against Qwen3-0.6B, fully fine-tuned on the same data with the LLM-as-Jev recipe [27] (**67.6%** test accuracy), the encoder reaches **69.7%** to **72.1%**. Scoring by "yes" minus "no" gives most of the gain, including all of the gain on external benchmarks (**59.6%** against **56.1%** for the decoder); the bounded sigmoid adds a smaller in-distribution gain and steadier runs, which the unbounded square-root softplus does not. The encoder takes **29 ms** per decision against **94 ms** on an NVIDIA A100 80GB GPU. We also add an evidence head that marks, in the same pass, the sentences an annotator would mark as support for the answer. It is trained on human-marked evidence and on labels selected with a reward adapted from SelfCite [7].

1 Introduction

Software often has to make a decision among fixed options: route a support ticket, classify the intent of a message, or check a claim against evidence. A chat model can do this, but its answer has to be generated and parsed, which adds latency and formatting failures. Jev [2] is a decision model of this kind, and models built in its style are called Jev-style decision models. They return a probability distribution over the options without generating free-form text, so a new task needs only a prompt and a list of options [27]. LLM-as-Jev [27] shows that a decoder language model already works as such a decision model, with no change to its architecture, tokenizer or vocabulary. A frozen model handles any number of options, and fine-tuning with a loss over the option numbers and KL anchors helps compact models and tasks with many options. All of its models are causal decoders.

A decision is a prefill-only workload: the model reads the input once and produces a single token. Decoders are designed for the opposite case, long generation. Multi-query and grouped-query attention [1, 38] shrink the KV cache so that decoding can run with larger batches, and the parameters this removes are put back in the MLP layers. Du et al. [16] show what this costs when nothing is generated: the large intermediate tensors of the MLP layers cause periodic spikes in GPU memory during prefill, which limit the input length. An encoder has no generation step, so it does not keep a KV cache. It therefore does not need to shrink that cache and make up the parameters in larger MLP layers, which are the source of these memory spikes.

An encoder also reads the whole input in both directions. Its limitation was the head: a classifier head is fixed to one label set and must be trained again for each new task. A masked language model has no such limit. It already predicts a word at a masked position, so an option can be scored by asking whether the model fills a mask next to it with "yes" or "no". Recent encoders such as ModernBERT [42] and UltraBERT [32] are pretrained with masked language modelling and can read long inputs, which decision tasks over documents need.

Reading in both directions matters for citing evidence as well. A decoder usually reads the document first and the

question after it, so that the document's KV cache can be reused across questions, as with prefix caching in vLLM [25] and RadixAttention in SGLang [50]. The document is then encoded without knowing the question, and its representations cannot be used as they are to find the evidence for one question. An encoder reads the question and the document together, so every token is conditioned on the question.

We build an encoder decision model on this basis. It takes the same prompt and option list as LLM-as-Jev, puts one mask in front of each option, and scores all options in a single forward pass. It needs no new head, works with any number of options, and is small enough to run on every item of a pipeline. Our contributions are:

- **An encoder decision model.** We fine-tune UltraBERT-380M [32] with one mask per option and the "yes" versus "no" prediction at each mask as the option's score. It is trained on the same data as LLM-as-Jev.
- **Training recipes for the encoder.** We compare four ways to train on the mask predictions: a softmax over the "yes" logits, and a softmax, a sigmoid normalised by the sum as in the gate of DeepSeek-V3 [14], and a square-root softplus normalised by the sum, each over "yes" minus "no". For each we measure accuracy, steadiness under option shuffling and removal, label balance and calibration.
- **A matched comparison with decoders.** We fully fine-tune Qwen3-0.6B [34] on the same data, tune the learning rate for every model, repeat the runs over seeds and evaluate on a held-out test split that was never used for a choice. We report accuracy, accuracy on external benchmarks, and time per decision, with two LoRA models [21] reproduced from LLM-as-Jev as references.
- **Evidence for the decision.** A decision model that generates no text gives no reasons, so we train an evidence head on the same encoder. Its labels come from human-marked evidence and from generated labels selected with a reward adapted from SelfCite [7]. We compare it with ContextCite [10] and AT2 [11] on agreement with human evidence on the test set, and on cost.

2 Method

2.1 How a row is presented

Figure 1 shows the same row in both formats, built from the training data described in Section 3.1. The options are shuffled each time a row is used, so the position of the correct option carries no information.

Decoder. The prompt follows LLM-as-Jev. The user message holds the state, the question, the options numbered [1] to [K], and one instruction: select one option and answer only with its number. The assistant turn is filled in up to "Best answer: [", and the model has to continue with the number of its choice and a closing bracket. Qwen3's thinking mode is turned off. Each option k is therefore the token sequence of "k]", and the options form a trie over these sequences.

Encoder. The state and the question are the same. The instruction asks to mark the correct option with "yes" and every other option with "no", and the options are listed as "[k] `[M]` description", with the tokenizer's mask token in front of each description. There is no chat template and nothing is generated. One forward pass gives a vector of logits at every mask, and the score of option k comes from the logits of the tokens "yes" and "no" at mask k, each taken with a leading space, as it appears after another word.

2.2 Loss functions

Decoder: trie loss with KL anchors. At each node of the trie the model chooses among the tokens that are legal there. The tree loss is the negative log-probability of the gold option, which is the product of the choices along its path, each normalised over the legal tokens only,

$$\mathscr{L}_{\text{tree}} = -\sum_{t} \log \frac{\exp z_t(g_t)}{\sum_{v \in \mathscr{V}_t} \exp z_t(v)}, \tag{1}$$

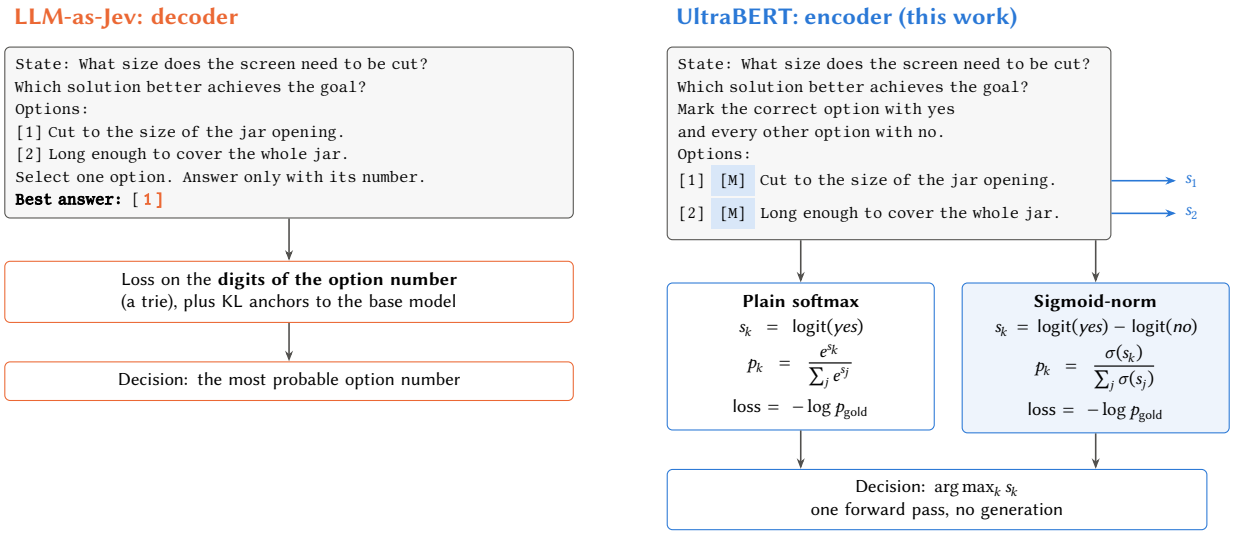


Figure 1. One row, two ways. The decoder reads the numbered options and writes the number of its answer; the loss is taken over the tokens of that number. The encoder gets a mask in front of each option and scores each option directly. Two of the four recipes are shown: the plain softmax over the options, which scores an option by the "yes" logit alone, and the sigmoid-normalised loss, which scores it by "yes" minus "no". Each option's score goes through a sigmoid, and the sum in the denominator keeps the options competing. The other two normalise "yes" minus "no" with a softmax and with a square-root softplus.

where z_t are the logits at step t, g_t the gold token and $\mathcal{V}_t$ the legal tokens. Three anchor terms keep the model close to its starting version p_0 [27]: $\mathcal{L}_{\text{mass}}$ keeps the share of probability on legal tokens, $\mathcal{L}_{\text{out}}$ keeps the distribution over illegal tokens, and $\mathcal{L}_{\text{pos}}$ keeps the next-token distribution at the start of the reply and after the closing bracket. They are KL divergences to p_0, computed over its 64 most likely tokens and one bucket for the rest. The loss is $\mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}_{\text{tree}} + \lambda\,(\mathcal{L}_{\text{mass}} + \mathcal{L}_{\text{out}} + \mathcal{L}_{\text{pos}})$ with $\lambda = 1$.

Encoder: scores and normalisation. Let $\ell_k(v)$ be the logit of token v at mask k. We use two scores. The first is $s_k = \ell_k(yes)$. The second is $s_k = \ell_k(yes) - \ell_k(no)$, which also asks the model to reject the other options. Both give a decision by $\arg\max_k s_k$. A recipe pairs a score with one of the three normalisations below. We train four: the softmax with either score, and the two other normalisations with the difference. We do not pair the sigmoid with $\ell_k(yes)$ alone: a vocabulary logit is large, so $\sigma(s_k) \approx 1$ for every option, $p_k = 1/K$ and the gradient vanishes; subtracting $\ell_k(no)$ brings the score into the range where the sigmoid is not saturated.

Plain softmax. The options compete through one softmax,

$$p_k = \frac{e^{s_k}}{\sum_{j=1}^{K} e^{s_j}}, \qquad \mathcal{L}_{\text{softmax}} = -\log p_g, \tag{2}$$

where g is the gold option.

Sigmoid-normalised loss. Each option's score first goes through a sigmoid, $\sigma(s_k)$, and these values are normalised by their sum,

$$p_k = \frac{\sigma(s_k)}{\sum_{j=1}^{K} \sigma(s_j)}, \qquad \mathcal{L}_{\text{sig-norm}} = -\log p_g. \tag{3}$$

This is the form of the gate of the DeepSeek-V3 mixture of experts [14], which scores every expert with a sigmoid and then normalises over the selected experts. Here the options play the role of the experts, normalised over all K options, with no selection and no balancing bias. Each $\sigma(s_k)$ lies between 0 and 1, and the options still compete through the sum. The gradient of the loss with respect to s_k is $(1 - \sigma(s_k))\,(p_k - \mathbf{1}[k = g])$, so an option that the model already accepts, with $\sigma(s_k)$ close to 1, adds little to the update. Since σ is increasing, the decision is the same $\arg\max_k s_k$. The sigmoid of a score can be read as that option's own probability of being correct, but nothing in the loss requires it: only the ratios enter p_k. Section 4.4 tests whether the trained model uses it this way.

Square-root softplus. To test whether the bound matters, we replace the sigmoid with $g(s) = \sqrt{\log(1 + e^s)}$,

$$p_k = \frac{g(s_k)}{\sum_{j=1}^{K} g(s_j)}, \qquad \mathcal{L}_{\text{sqrt-sp}} = -\log p_g. \tag{4}$$

For a rejected option, $g(s) \approx e^{s/2}$, a softmax at twice the temperature; for an accepted option, g keeps growing like $\sqrt{s}$, so its gradient fades slowly instead of vanishing as with the sigmoid.

3 Experimental setup

3.1 Training data

We follow LLM-as-Jev [27] and train on its Reason+Long mixture, with Nimble added. It has 13 datasets: intent routing (CLINC150 [26], MASSIVE [17], Bitext [6]), short reasoning (ReClor [45], LogiQA 2.0 [28], CosmosQA [22], PIQA [5], ANLI [29], ProofWriter [39]), long input (ContractNLI [23], MuSiQue [40], QuALITY [30]) and Nimble [4]. Each is turned into a state (the passages), a question and a list of options. We keep 1,000 training rows per dataset, 13,000 in total. Rows are filtered in this order:

1. **Duplicates.** Rows with the same input are collapsed to one, and rows with the same input but different answers are removed.
2. **Leakage between splits.** A training row is removed if its input, or the source document it comes from, also appears in the validation split.
3. **Benchmark overlap.** A training row is removed if it shares a 13-word n-gram, or an identical sentence of six or more words, with any evaluation benchmark.
4. **Length.** Prompts longer than 10,240 tokens, counted with the Qwen3.5-4B tokenizer, are dropped, never truncated.

The held-out rows are drawn from the validation split with the same duplicate and length filters, up to 500 per dataset and in whole source documents, giving 6,315 rows. We split them into a dev set of 1,300 rows, used to choose learning rates, and a test set of 5,015 rows that no choice depends on.

3.2 Models

Encoder. UltraBERT-380M [32] is fully fine-tuned with the format of Section 2.1 and each of the four recipes of Section 2.2.

Decoders. We fully fine-tune Qwen3-0.6B [34] with the loss of Section 2.2, with a frozen copy of the starting model as p_0. We also report two LoRA models [21], Qwen3-0.6B and Qwen3-4B, that we reproduced from the LLM-as-Jev paper on the same training set with the same loss. The encoder is fully fine-tuned, so the fully fine-tuned decoder is the matched comparison, and the LoRA models are references.

3.3 Implementation details

Every model is trained for one epoch with a batch of 32 rows. We sweep the learning rate with one seed per value and choose by accuracy on the dev set: $\{0.8, 1.5, 3, 5\}\times10^{-5}$ for the encoder with the softmax over "yes", $\{0.8, 1.5, 2, 3\}\times10^{-5}$ with the sigmoid-normalised loss, and $\{0.5, 1, 2\}\times10^{-5}$ for the decoder. Both encoder sweeps choose 1.5×10^{-5}, which we also use for the other two recipes, without a sweep. The two best Qwen rates differ by 0.1 points on dev, and we use 1×10^{-5}. At the chosen rate we repeat the run with different seeds, which change the order of the rows and the option shuffling, and report the average.

The metric is accuracy. ALL is the mean accuracy over the 13 datasets, so that every dataset counts equally. On the test set we average each row's correctness over the seeds of a model and report ALL of this average. The encoder is scored with fp32 weights under bf16 autocast, because bf16 weights change its long-document results (Section 5.4). The Qwen checkpoints are scored with bf16 weights.

3.4 External benchmarks and cost

To see whether training on the mixture changes behaviour outside it, we score six benchmarks as decision rows: BoolQ [8], MMLU [20], MMLU-Pro [41], ARC-Challenge [9], Winogrande [36] and SciQ [43], with 500, 1200, 800, 600, 500 and 400 rows. The sample sizes follow LLM-as-Jev, whose samples are not released, so ours are seeded uniform draws. External is the mean accuracy over the six. These benchmarks are not used for any choice.

Time per decision is the mean over the dev set on one A100, with one row at a time, as when serving single requests. The encoder is timed on the softmax checkpoint, which has the same architecture as the sigmoid-normalised one, in the scoring precision. The decoders are timed with the reproduced LoRA checkpoints in bf16, with the LoRA weights merged, which have the same architecture as the fully fine-tuned model.

4 Results

4.1 Encoder against decoder

Table 1 and Figure 2 give the main comparison. With the same data and training budget, every encoder recipe is above Qwen3-0.6B (67.6% on the test set): 69.7% with the softmax over "yes", and 71.3%, 71.2% and 72.1% with the softmax, the square-root softplus and the sigmoid over "yes" minus "no". The encoder also has fewer parameters, 380M against 0.6B. On the six external benchmarks the encoder recipes reach 57.8% to 59.6%, against 56.1% for the decoder. Every test number is below its dev number by 0.6 to 2.0 points, because the learning rates were chosen on dev, and the ranking does not change. The reproduced Qwen3-4B LoRA model, at 77.3%, remains ahead of all sub-billion models, so our claims are limited to models below one billion parameters.

4.2 Training regime

The reproduced LoRA model of the same size reaches 63.0%, 4.6 points below the fully fine-tuned decoder. Both were trained on the same data, so this gap comes from updating all weights instead of a LoRA adapter, and accounts for about half of the 9.0-point gap between the best encoder recipe and the LoRA model. The external accuracy of fully fine-tuned Qwen3-0.6B (56.1%) is not above that of its LoRA model (56.9%); Section 5 shows how the learning rate and the number of epochs trade held-out against external accuracy.

4.3 Recipes

Scoring by "yes" minus "no" gives most of the gain: over the "yes" logit alone it adds 1.6 points on the test set and 59.6% against 57.8% on the external benchmarks. The sigmoid normalisation adds a further 0.8 points on the test set and nothing on the external benchmarks, and its results vary less between seeds. The square-root softplus, which is not bounded, matches the softmax (71.2% against 71.3%), which suggests that the bound of the sigmoid is what matters. The bound is not the only difference, though: for rejected options the square-root softplus also acts as a softmax at twice the temperature (Section 2.2). Section 5 compares the labels that each recipe predicts.

4.4 How strongly the options depend on each other

A softmax gate couples the experts of a mixture of experts, and DeepSeek-V3 replaces it with a sigmoid [14]. We test whether this matters for options. On the dev rows, we shuffle the options four times and remove one wrong option, and add a softmax model scored with "yes" minus "no" to separate the score from the normalisation (Table 2).

The score does most of the work: "yes" minus "no" raises external accuracy from 57.8% to 59.6%, lowers the answer changes when a wrong option is removed from 5.9% to 4.8%, and lowers the largest gradient norm from 842 to 139. Under shuffling, the score and the sigmoid each remove about one point (15.6%, 14.6%, 13.7%). On top of the score, the sigmoid raises dev accuracy from 71.5% to 72.9%, lowers the calibration error from 0.027 to 0.023, and fixes the label balance, which the score alone makes worse (total variation 0.167, 0.213, 0.139). After training, the gold option's sigmoid averages only 0.049, so the model acts almost like a softmax. The square-root softplus has the smallest gradient spikes (104) but the most answer changes under shuffling (16.6%).

Table 1. Matched comparison: average accuracy (%) over seeds. Test ALL is on the test set; Dev ALL and External are on the dev set and the six external benchmarks. Learning rates were chosen on dev. Bold: best below 1B parameters.

Model	Params	Dev ALL	Test ALL	External
UltraBERT-380M, softmax, yes	380M	71.2	69.7	57.8
UltraBERT-380M, softmax, yes − no	380M	71.7	71.3	**59.6**
UltraBERT-380M, sqrt-softplus, yes − no	380M	71.6	71.2	59.3
UltraBERT-380M, sigmoid-norm, yes − no	380M	**72.7**	**72.1**	59.5
Qwen3-0.6B, full FT	0.6B	69.0	67.6	56.1
Qwen3-0.6B, LoRA (reproduced)	0.6B	64.5	63.0	56.9
Qwen3-4B, LoRA (reproduced)	4B	79.3	77.3	73.5

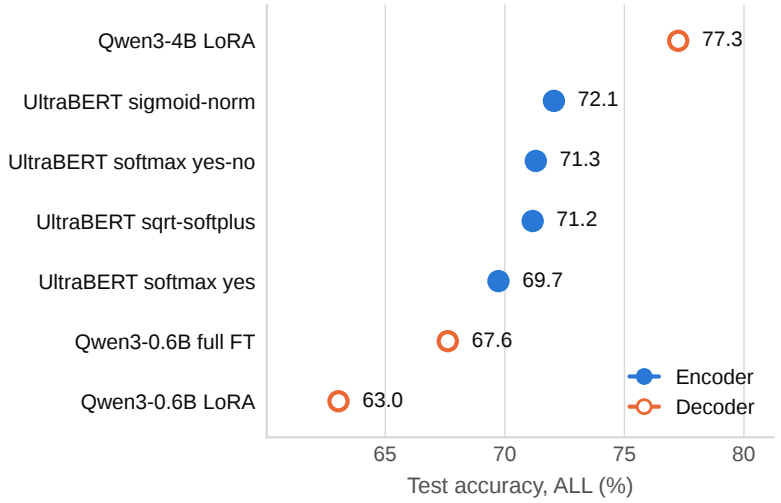


Figure 2. Test accuracy (ALL, the mean over 13 datasets, on the test set, never used for any choice), averaged over seeds; encoders filled, decoders hollow.

4.5 Cost

The encoder takes 29 ms per decision on one A100, one row at a time, against 94 ms for Qwen3-0.6B and 170 ms for Qwen3-4B. Appendix A gives the batched throughput.

5 Analysis

This section describes what we saw when training UltraBERT. Unless noted, the numbers are from the dev set with one seed per setting.

5.1 Learning rate and training length

The learning rate that is best on dev, $1.5 \cdot 10^{-5}$ for both swept recipes, is also among the best on the external benchmarks. Higher rates add little on dev and lower the external accuracy, down to 53.2% for the softmax at $5 \cdot 10^{-5}$. Qwen3-0.6B shows the same pattern more strongly: its external accuracy falls with every increase of the rate, from 57.4% at $5 \cdot 10^{-6}$ to 53.9% at $2 \cdot 10^{-5}$. A second epoch has the same effect. With the softmax at $3 \cdot 10^{-5}$ it raises dev accuracy from 70.7% to 73.9%, above any one-epoch encoder run, and lowers external accuracy from 56.2% to 55.1%. We report one epoch for all models, since a longer run fits the mixture at the cost of behaviour outside it.

Table 2. How strongly the options depend on each other, on the dev set (average scores). Each row is scored in four random option orders and once with one wrong option removed. TV: total variation between the predicted and the gold shares, over the three datasets with a fixed label set (label) and over option positions (position); lower is closer. Calibration error: expected calibration error of the top option's probability. $|s_k|$: size of the raw option scores. Bold: best in each row; accuracy is better higher, the other scores lower.

	Softmax, "yes"	Softmax, "yes" − "no"	Sqrt-softplus, "yes" − "no"	Sigmoid-norm, "yes" − "no"
Dev accuracy (%)	71.4	71.5	71.1	**72.9**
External accuracy (%)	57.8	**59.6**	59.3	59.5
Answer changes, options shuffled (%)	15.6	14.6	16.6	**13.7**
Answer changes, one wrong option removed (%)	5.9	**4.8**	5.4	4.9
Largest gradient norm in training	842	139	**104**	190
Label shares vs. gold (TV)	0.167	0.213	0.154	**0.139**
Position shares vs. gold (TV)	0.050	0.045	0.049	**0.041**
Calibration error, top option	0.038	0.027	0.032	**0.023**
Mean $\lvert s_k \rvert$	60.5	3.0	12.3	7.4

5.2 Datasets

Table 6 in the appendix gives the test accuracy for every dataset, averaged over seeds. The sigmoid-normalised encoder is above the fully fine-tuned decoder on 10 of the 13 datasets. The gaps are largest on CosmosQA, ANLI and QuALITY, where it is ahead by 15.3, 9.9 and 9.8 points, and on MASSIVE (8.0) and MuSiQue (6.9). It is below the decoder on three datasets: Nimble (−6.6), LogiQA 2.0 (−2.2) and ProofWriter (−1.7). The 4B decoder is ahead of the encoder on all ten datasets outside intent routing. The gap is 12 to 19 points on ReClor, Nimble and LogiQA 2.0, and below one point on CosmosQA, ANLI and ContractNLI. On the three intent datasets, CLINC150, MASSIVE and Bitext, the encoder is level with or slightly above the 4B decoder, by 1.4 to 2.1 points.

5.3 Loss and score

Table 3 separates the changes between the plain softmax and the sigmoid-normalised loss. Scoring with the difference of the "yes" and "no" logits, with the softmax kept, raises the external accuracy by 2.0 points and the dev accuracy by 0.4 points; averaged over seeds, the score accounts for the whole external gain (57.8%, 59.6%, 59.5% in Table 2). Replacing the softmax with the sigmoid-normalised loss then raises dev accuracy by a further 1.3 points, and MuSiQue most of all, from 64% to 76%. Nimble falls from 55% with the plain score to 43% with the sigmoid-normalised loss in this one run, on 100 dev rows. On the test set, averaged over seeds, the sigmoid-normalised model is instead 3.7 points above the softmax on Nimble. Replacing "yes" with "correct" did not help in this run: 70.6% against 71.1% with the "yes" logit, and 70.1% against 71.5% for the difference with "incorrect".

The recipes also predict different labels. On MuSiQue the correct answer is "Yes" in 48% of the rows. The sigmoid-normalised models predict "Yes" for 47 to 60% of the rows, against 64% and 69% for the two softmax variants (dev rows). On ProofWriter, where "Unknown" is correct for a third of the rows, the softmax never predicts it and the sigmoid-normalised models predict it for 2 to 12%. This class stays largely unlearned for every variant.

5.4 Numerical precision

The encoder has to be scored with fp32 weights under bf16 autocast. Its masked-token logits are of the order of 200, where bf16 can only step by 1 or 2, so options tie or swap. With bf16 weights the MuSiQue accuracy drifts by up to 8 points. The decoders are scored with bf16 weights, and re-scoring a Qwen checkpoint in another precision moved its dev accuracy by at most 0.8 points.

Table 3. Encoder variants on the dev rows, one seed (accuracy, %). The first row is the softmax with the "yes" logit, the setting used for the softmax results elsewhere. Bold: best in each column.

Variant	Dev ALL	External	MuSiQue	ContractNLI	Nimble
Softmax, "yes"	71.1	57.1	57.0	75.0	**55.0**
Softmax, "yes" − "no"	71.5	59.1	64.0	78.0	48.0
Sigmoid-norm, "yes" − "no"	**72.8**	**59.4**	**76.0**	**81.0**	43.0
Softmax, "correct"	70.6	56.8	48.0	77.0	52.0
Softmax, "correct" − "incorrect"	70.1	58.0	54.0	76.0	46.0

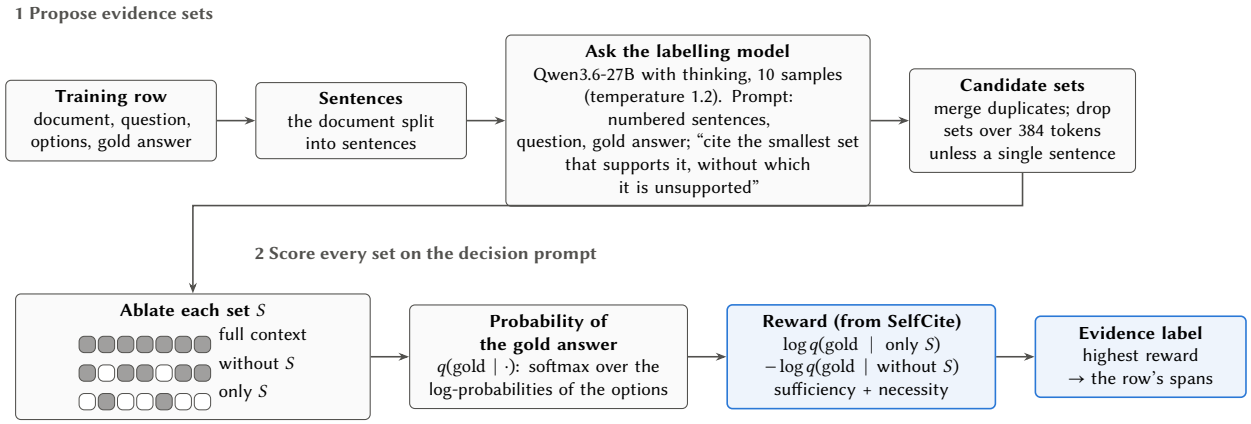


Figure 3. How evidence labels are generated for rows without human evidence. The labelling model, Qwen3.6-27B, proposes up to ten sets of sentences as evidence for the *gold* answer. The same model then answers the decision prompt three ways for each set S: with the full document, without S, and with only S: a good set is enough to keep the answer (sufficiency) and its removal loses the answer (necessity). The set with the highest reward becomes the label, which trains the evidence head. Unlike SelfCite, the answer scored is the gold answer and not the model's own response.

6 Citing the evidence

A decision model writes no text, so it gives no reasons. We add a small head on the frozen encoder that marks the document sentences supporting the chosen option, in the same forward pass. For each document token, it reads the token's hidden state and that of the chosen option's mask, and outputs the probability that the token is evidence. A sentence scores the highest probability among its tokens.

The head is trained on human-marked evidence where a dataset has it. For other rows, a labelling model proposes sets of sentences for the gold answer, and we keep the set with the best reward adapted from SelfCite [7] (Figure 3, Appendix B).

Comparison. We compare with the encoder's average attention, AT2 [11] and ContextCite [10] on the 889 test rows with gold evidence, from ContractNLI, MuSiQue, Nimble and ProofWriter. This is not a comparison between equals: the head is trained on evidence labels, while AT2 and ContextCite are fitted to the model's response to ablations. We report sentence average precision (AP) against the gold sentences, how often the top sentence is gold, and the time per row. For the baselines we also report LDS [10], the rank correlation between predicted and actual changes in the answer's probability when sentences are removed; we did not compute it for the head. AT2 and ContextCite ran on the softmax encoder, so Table 4 has a head for each encoder.

Results. On the same encoder, the head has a higher sentence AP than ContextCite and AT2 (0.55 against 0.41 and 0.33) in 68 ms per row, against 1,860 ms for ContextCite. The lead comes from Nimble and ProofWriter; ContextCite is better on ContractNLI and level on MuSiQue. The head on the sigmoid-normalised encoder reaches 0.68, and is level with or above ContextCite on those two datasets. The words it marks have a precision of 0.33 and a recall of 0.35, so they are a rough guide, not an exact span.

Table 4. Sentence evidence on the test rows with gold evidence. Sentence AP: average precision against the gold sentences, over all rows and per dataset (CNLI: ContractNLI, PW: ProofWriter). Top-1: share of rows where the top sentence is gold. LDS: how closely the scores follow the model; not computed for the heads. The first three methods and the first head use the encoder trained with the softmax. Each head is one training run. Bold: best in each column (lowest for time).

	Sentence AP							
Method	All	CNLI	MuSiQue	Nimble	PW	Top-1 (%)	LDS	ms per row
Average attention	0.25	0.07	0.20	0.34	0.38	14	0.09	69
AT2	0.33	0.30	0.28	0.30	0.42	23	0.15	71
ContextCite	0.41	0.52	0.33	0.33	0.44	44	**0.64**	1,860
Evidence head, softmax encoder	0.55	0.28	0.32	**0.96**	0.67	54	–	**68**
Evidence head, sigmoid-norm encoder	**0.68**	**0.55**	**0.52**	**0.96**	**0.68**	**74**	–	72

Limits. The head predicts the evidence an annotator would mark, not what the model used; ContextCite has the highest LDS (0.64). On rows where the model is wrong, every method is scored against evidence for an option it did not choose.

7 Related work

Jev-style decision models. Most of the community decision models compared in LLM-as-Jev [27] use a decoder backbone and read the logits of an option letter or label, with the backbone frozen or tuned with LoRA. LLM-as-Jev studies this readout and when fine-tuning helps. AnyJev reads a typed decision from one prefill and corrects the label prior and the effect of option order without training [46]. The Contrastive Language Model [24] embeds the state (the context and the question) and each candidate separately, with a frozen Qwen3-8B and two projection heads, and scores them by cosine similarity, so the candidate embeddings can be cached. Because the two are encoded apart, a candidate never attends to the context, and its training starts from tens of millions of pairs. All of these start from a decoder. We start from an encoder that reads the context, the question and all options together, and compare the two under the same training data.

Encoders that score options. Prompt-based classifiers use the masked-token head of an encoder with a verbalizer for a fixed set of labels [18, 37]. Two encoder decision models are listed on public Jev leaderboards [3]: Laya [12] and Von [31], both built on ModernBERT-large with one mask per option. Both add new layers on top of the encoder, and they are described in model cards. Laya trains its head with reinforcement learning on proper scoring rules, and Von uses a listwise softmax loss with a Brier term. We reuse the pretrained masked-token head and score each option by "yes" against "no", so there is no new head. We also compare four training recipes, match the decoders in data and training, report a held-out test split, and add evidence.

Option letters, position and label bias. Reading the letter of the chosen option requires a model to bind the letter to the option text [35]. Models favour certain option labels, and their accuracy changes when the options are reordered [33, 49]. Corrections are usually applied after training, by calibrating with a content-free input [48] or by dividing out a label prior and averaging over rotations of the options [46]. We shuffle the options during training and measure how the recipes differ in the labels they predict.

Encoders and decoders. Controlled studies pretrain encoders and decoders with the same recipe, and find that encoders do well on classification and retrieval [44] and that masked language modelling suits tasks that need text representations [19]. A much larger decoder can still beat an encoder on classification [47]. Decoder designs such as multi-query and grouped-query attention target long generation [1, 38], and Du et al. [16] study what they cost when nothing is generated (Section 1). Modern encoders keep long inputs and fast inference [32, 42].

Attribution and evidence. ContextCite learns a surrogate model from many ablations of the context [10]. AT2 learns to weight attention heads, and needs a decoder pass [11]. SelfCite fine-tunes a model to cite, using the change in the answer probability when the cited text is removed or kept alone as the reward [7]. Rationale benchmarks such

as ERASER compare selected evidence with human rationales [15]. We train an evidence head on the encoder with labels from human-marked evidence and from the SelfCite reward, which gives the evidence in one pass.

8 Conclusion

We built a decision model on an encoder, UltraBERT-380M, with one mask in front of each option, and compared four recipes for training it. With the same data and full fine-tuning, every recipe is more accurate than Qwen3-0.6B trained with LLM-as-Jev (69.7% to 72.1% against 67.6% on the test set), and the encoder takes 29 ms per decision against 94 ms. Scoring an option by "yes" minus "no" gives most of the gain, including all of the external gain; the bounded sigmoid adds 0.8 test points, steadier runs and better label balance, which an unbounded square-root softplus does not. An evidence head on the frozen encoder marks, in the same pass, the sentences an annotator would mark as support. On the test rows with gold evidence from four datasets, it ranks the annotated sentences higher on average than AT2 and ContextCite, which use no evidence labels, though ContextCite is better on ContractNLI.

The results have limits. They are at the scale of 0.4 to 0.6 billion parameters, and a 4B decoder is still more accurate overall, except on the intent datasets. We used one encoder and one training mixture, in English, and compared against one decoder family. The evidence head predicts the evidence that an annotator would mark, and does not show what the model used; we did not compute its LDS, and ContextCite has the highest LDS of the methods we measured. We did not measure memory; that argument rests on Du et al. [16].

Two directions follow. The first is larger encoders, to see whether the advantage holds above one billion parameters. The second is to train the decision and the evidence together, so that the evidence head can also shape the encoder.

References

[1] Joshua Ainslie, James Lee-Thorp, Michiel de Jong, Yury Zemlyanskiy, Federico Lebrón, and Sumit Sanghai. GQA: Training generalized multi-query transformer models from multi-head checkpoints. In *Proceedings of the 2023 Conference on Empirical Methods in Natural Language Processing*, 2023. arXiv:2305.13245.

[2] Diogo Almeida. Introducing system one models & Jev. TypeSafe AI blog, https://typesafe.ai/blog/introducing-system-one-models-and-jev, 2026.

[3] Benchmark Heaven. JevBench: Jev-class model benchmark (v1.4.2.2). https://benchmarkheaven.com/jev-models/, 2026.

[4] Bespoke Labs. Nimble. https://github.com/bespokelabsai/nimble, 2025.

[5] Yonatan Bisk, Rowan Zellers, Ronan Le Bras, Jianfeng Gao, and Yejin Choi. PIQA: Reasoning about physical commonsense in natural language. In *Proceedings of AAAI*, 2020.

[6] Bitext. Bitext customer support LLM chatbot training dataset. https://huggingface.co/datasets/bitext/Bitext-customer-support-llm-chatbot-training-dataset, 2023.

[7] Yung-Sung Chuang, Benjamin Cohen-Wang, Shannon Zejiang Shen, Zhaofeng Wu, Hu Xu, Xi Victoria Lin, James Glass, Shang-Wen Li, and Wen-tau Yih. SelfCite: Self-supervised alignment for context attribution in large language models. In *International Conference on Machine Learning*, 2025. arXiv:2502.09604.

[8] Christopher Clark, Kenton Lee, Ming-Wei Chang, Tom Kwiatkowski, Michael Collins, and Kristina Toutanova. BoolQ: Exploring the surprising difficulty of natural yes/no questions. In *Proceedings of NAACL*, 2019.

[9] Peter Clark, Isaac Cowhey, Oren Etzioni, Tushar Khot, Ashish Sabharwal, Carissa Schoenick, and Oyvind Tafjord. Think you have solved question answering? try ARC, the AI2 reasoning challenge. *arXiv preprint arXiv:1803.05457*, 2018.

[10] Benjamin Cohen-Wang, Harshay Shah, Kristian Georgiev, and Aleksander Madry. ContextCite: Attributing model generation to context. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2409.00729*, 2024.

[11] Benjamin Cohen-Wang, Yung-Sung Chuang, and Aleksander Madry. Learning to attribute with attention. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2504.13752*, 2025.

[12] Convai Innovations. Laya: an open non-autoregressive decision model. https://huggingface.co/convaiinnovations/laya, 2026.

[13] Tri Dao. FlashAttention-2: Faster attention with better parallelism and work partitioning. In *International Conference on Learning Representations (ICLR)*, 2024.

[14] DeepSeek-AI. DeepSeek-V3 technical report. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2412.19437*, 2024.

[15] Jay DeYoung, Sarthak Jain, Nazneen Fatema Rajani, Eric Lehman, Caiming Xiong, Richard Socher, and Byron C. Wallace. ERASER: A benchmark to evaluate rationalized NLP models. In *Proceedings of ACL*, 2020. arXiv:1911.03429.

[16] Kuntai Du, Bowen Wang, Chen Zhang, Yiming Cheng, Qing Lan, Hejian Sang, Yihua Cheng, Jiayi Yao, Xiaoxuan Liu, Yifan Qiao, Ion Stoica, and Junchen Jiang. PrefillOnly: An inference engine for prefill-only workloads in large language model applications. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2505.07203*, 2025.

[17] Jack FitzGerald et al. MASSIVE: A 1M-example multilingual natural language understanding dataset with 51 typologically-diverse languages. In *Proceedings of ACL*, 2023.

[18] Tianyu Gao, Adam Fisch, and Danqi Chen. Making pre-trained language models better few-shot learners. In *Proceedings of ACL*, 2021. arXiv:2012.15723.

[19] Hippolyte Gisserot-Boukhlef, Nicolas Boizard, Manuel Faysse, Duarte M. Alves, Emmanuel Malherbe, André F. T. Martins, Céline Hudelot, and Pierre Colombo. Should we still pretrain encoders with masked language modeling? *arXiv preprint arXiv:2507.00994*, 2025.

[20] Dan Hendrycks, Collin Burns, Steven Basart, Andy Zou, Mantas Mazeika, Dawn Song, and Jacob Steinhardt. Measuring massive multitask language understanding. In *International Conference on Learning Representations (ICLR)*, 2021.

[21] Edward J. Hu, Yelong Shen, Phillip Wallis, Zeyuan Allen-Zhu, Yuanzhi Li, Shean Wang, Lu Wang, and Weizhu Chen. LoRA: Low-rank adaptation of large language models. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2106.09685*, 2021.

[22] Lifu Huang, Ronan Le Bras, Chandra Bhagavatula, and Yejin Choi. Cosmos QA: Machine reading comprehension with contextual commonsense reasoning. In *Proceedings of EMNLP-IJCNLP*, 2019.

[23] Yuta Koreeda and Christopher D. Manning. ContractNLI: A dataset for document-level natural language inference for contracts. In *Findings of EMNLP*, 2021.

[24] Jacky Kwok, Hangoo Kang, Tarun Suresh, Jon Saad-Falcon, Marco Pavone, Christopher Ré, and Azalia Mirhoseini. Contrastive language models: A system one model for fast and generalizable decision-making. Blog post, Stanford University and NVIDIA Research, 23 September 2026. https://contrastive-lm.notion.site, 2026.

[25] Woosuk Kwon, Zhuohan Li, Siyuan Zhuang, Ying Sheng, Lianmin Zheng, Cody Hao Yu, Joseph E. Gonzalez, Hao Zhang, and Ion Stoica. Efficient memory management for large language model serving with PagedAttention. In *Proceedings of the 29th Symposium on Operating Systems Principles (SOSP)*, 2023.

[26] Stefan Larson, Anish Mahendran, Joseph J. Peper, Christopher Clarke, Andrew Lee, Parker Hill, Jonathan K. Kummerfeld, Kevin Leach, Michael A. Laurenzano, Lingjia Tang, and Jason Mars. An evaluation dataset for intent classification and out-of-scope prediction. In *Proceedings of EMNLP-IJCNLP*, 2019.

[27] Yinheng Li and Justin Wagle. LLM-as-Jev: LLMs are already Jev-style decision models—when and how to fine-tune them. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2610.02076*, 2026.

[28] Hanmeng Liu, Jian Liu, Leyang Cui, Zhiyang Teng, Nan Duan, Ming Zhou, and Yue Zhang. LogiQA 2.0—an improved dataset for logical reasoning in natural language understanding. *IEEE/ACM Transactions on Audio, Speech, and Language Processing*, 2023.

[29] Yixin Nie, Adina Williams, Emily Dinan, Mohit Bansal, Jason Weston, and Douwe Kiela. Adversarial NLI: A new benchmark for natural language understanding. In *Proceedings of ACL*, 2020.

[30] Richard Yuanzhe Pang, Alicia Parrish, Nitish Joshi, Nikita Nangia, Jason Phang, Angelica Chen, Vishakh Padmakumar, Johnny Ma, Jana Thompson, He He, and Samuel R. Bowman. QuALITY: Question answering with long input texts, yes! In *Proceedings of NAACL*, 2022.

[31] Victor Hugo Panisa. Von: a non-autoregressive decision model. https://huggingface.co/wfzyx/von, 2026.

[32] Jungwoo Park, Taewhoo Lee, and Jaewoo Kang. UltraBERT: Beyond the limit of BERT pre-training. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2610.15028*, 2026.

[33] Pouya Pezeshkpour and Estevam Hruschka. Large language models sensitivity to the order of options in multiple-choice questions. In *Findings of the Association for Computational Linguistics: NAACL 2024*, 2024. arXiv:2308.11483.

[34] Qwen Team. Qwen3 technical report. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2505.09388*, 2025.

[35] Joshua Robinson, Christopher Michael Rytting, and David Wingate. Leveraging large language models for multiple choice question answering. In *International Conference on Learning Representations*, 2023. arXiv:2210.12353.

[36] Keisuke Sakaguchi, Ronan Le Bras, Chandra Bhagavatula, and Yejin Choi. WinoGrande: An adversarial winograd schema challenge at scale. In *Proceedings of AAAI*, 2020.

[37] Timo Schick and Hinrich Schütze. Exploiting cloze questions for few shot text classification and natural language inference. In *Proceedings of EACL*, 2021. arXiv:2001.07676.

[38] Noam Shazeer. Fast transformer decoding: One write-head is all you need. *arXiv preprint arXiv:1911.02150*, 2019.

[39] Oyvind Tafjord, Bhavana Dalvi, and Peter Clark. ProofWriter: Generating implications, proofs, and abductive statements over natural language. In *Findings of ACL-IJCNLP*, 2021.

[40] Harsh Trivedi, Niranjan Balasubramanian, Tushar Khot, and Ashish Sabharwal. MuSiQue: Multihop questions via single-hop question composition. *Transactions of the Association for Computational Linguistics*, 2022.

[41] Yubo Wang et al. MMLU-Pro: A more robust and challenging multi-task language understanding benchmark. In *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems (Datasets and Benchmarks Track)*, 2024.

[42] Benjamin Warner, Antoine Chaffin, Benjamin Clavié, et al. Smarter, better, faster, longer: A modern bidirectional encoder for fast, memory efficient, and long context finetuning and inference. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2412.13663*, 2024.

[43] Johannes Welbl, Nelson F. Liu, and Matt Gardner. Crowdsourcing multiple choice science questions. In *Proceedings of the 3rd Workshop on Noisy User-generated Text*, 2017.

[44] Orion Weller, Kathryn Ricci, Marc Marone, Antoine Chaffin, Dawn Lawrie, and Benjamin Van Durme. Seq vs seq: An open suite of paired encoders and decoders. In *International Conference on Learning Representations (ICLR)*, 2026. arXiv:2507.11412.

[45] Weihao Yu, Zihang Jiang, Yanfei Dong, and Jiashi Feng. ReClor: A reading comprehension dataset requiring logical reasoning. In *International Conference on Learning Representations (ICLR)*, 2020.

[46] Jiamu Zhang, Tianze Yang, Yucheng Shi, Evan Chen, Zixiang Nie, Kelly Wan, Liangjie Hong, Ninghao Liu, and Liang Wu. AnyJev technical report. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2610.00831*, 2026.

[47] Hang Zhao, Qile P. Chen, Yijing Barry Zhang, and Gang Yang. Advancing single and multi-task text classification through large language model fine-tuning. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2412.08587*, 2024.

[48] Tony Z. Zhao, Eric Wallace, Shi Feng, Dan Klein, and Sameer Singh. Calibrate before use: Improving few-shot performance of language models. In *International Conference on Machine Learning*, 2021. arXiv:2102.09690.

[49] Chujie Zheng, Hao Zhou, Fandong Meng, Jie Zhou, and Minlie Huang. Large language models are not robust multiple choice selectors. In *International Conference on Learning Representations*, 2024. arXiv:2309.03882.

[50] Lianmin Zheng, Liangsheng Yin, Zhiqiang Xie, Chuyue Sun, Jeff Huang, Cody Hao Yu, Shiyi Cao, Christos Kozyrakis, Ion Stoica, Joseph E. Gonzalez, Clark Barrett, and Ying Sheng. SGLang: Efficient execution of structured language model programs. In *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems (NeurIPS)*, 2024.

A Implementation details

Table 5 lists the training settings. Both models train for one epoch, which is 406 steps at a batch of 32.

Table 5. Training settings. Learning rates are in Section 3.3.

	UltraBERT-380M	Qwen3-0.6B (full)
Optimiser	AdamW, $\beta = (0.9, 0.98)$, $\epsilon = 10^{-6}$	AdamW
Weight decay	0.1	0.01
Schedule	5% warmup, linear decay to 0	100 warmup steps, linear decay to 10%
Gradient clipping	1.0	1.0
Precision	fp32 weights, bf16 autocast	fp32 weights, bf16 autocast
Attention	PyTorch SDPA	PyTorch SDPA
Gradient checkpointing	yes	yes
Token limit	32,768	16,384

The encoder settings are those of the UltraBERT model card, and we change only the learning rate. No training row exceeds either token limit, because the data are cut at 10,240 tokens (Section 3.1).

Batched throughput. When the dev rows are scored in batches, the encoder processes 76.9 rows per second, against 16.4 for Qwen3-0.6B and 6.5 for Qwen3-4B. The encoder uses packed variable-length FlashAttention-2 [13] and the decoders use length-sorted padded batches, so part of this gap comes from the padding.

B Evidence head

We train one head on each fine-tuned encoder (sigmoid-normalised and softmax, both at a learning rate of $1.5 \cdot 10^{-5}$); the softmax one matches the encoder used by AT2 and ContextCite.

Model. For document token t and option k, the head reads $[h_t; h_k; h_t \odot h_k]$, the final hidden states of the token and of option k's mask. A two-layer perceptron (512 hidden units, GELU, dropout 0.1) maps it to one logit, whose sigmoid is the probability that the token is evidence for option k.

Labels. A token is positive if it overlaps an evidence span. We use gold evidence where it exists (Nimble, ContractNLI, MuSiQue, ProofWriter) and generated spans elsewhere (Figure 3): ANLI, QuALITY, LogiQA 2.0, CosmosQA and the remaining rows of ContractNLI, MuSiQue and ProofWriter. Qwen3.6-27B with thinking gets the numbered sentences, the question and the gold answer, and is asked for the smallest set of sentences that supports the answer and without which it is unsupported. We sample ten replies (temperature 1.2, top-p 0.9), merge

identical sets, and drop sets over 384 tokens unless they are one sentence. The same model scores each set S on the decision prompt with the full context, without S and with only S ($1 + 2m$ prompts for m sets); $q(\text{gold} \mid \cdot)$ is the softmax over the options' summed token log-probabilities. The label is the set with the highest reward $\log q(\text{gold} \mid \text{only } S) - \log q(\text{gold} \mid \text{without } S)$, sufficiency plus necessity, with no size penalty since the token cap bounds the set. Unlike SelfCite, we score the gold answer, so the reward is informative only where the labelling model believes it. We did not check the generated labels against human evidence directly; the ablation below is an indirect check. There are 7,778 labelled training rows (7,390 for training, 388 for validation), with 5.2% positive tokens.

Training. Token-level binary cross-entropy, with positives weighted by the negative-to-positive ratio (18.1), on the frozen encoder. The head is conditioned on the gold option in training and on the chosen option at test time. AdamW (learning rate 10^{-3}, weight decay 0.01), 16 rows per step, three epochs; we keep the epoch with the best validation token average precision.

Evaluation. All methods are scored on the test rows with gold evidence and at least two sentences. A word is highlighted when its probability is at least a global threshold, tuned for word F1 on the dev rows with gold evidence: 0.79 for the sigmoid-normalised encoder and 0.74 for the softmax encoder. On the sigmoid-normalised encoder, the head's token average precision is 0.46 (0.17 for a random ranking), and 0.63 of its ten highest tokens are gold. On the softmax encoder, adding the generated labels to the gold ones raises sentence average precision from 0.53 to 0.55 and token average precision from 0.38 to 0.39.

C Additional results

Table 6 gives the test accuracy for each dataset, averaged over seeds.

Table 6. Test accuracy (%) per dataset, averaged over seeds. UB is UltraBERT-380M: UB yes is the softmax over each option's "yes" logit; UB yes−no is the softmax over "yes" minus "no"; UB sqrt-sp and UB sig-norm normalise "yes" minus "no" with the square-root softplus and the sigmoid, each divided by the sum over options (Section 2.2). Bold: best below 1B parameters.

Dataset	Rows	UB yes	UB yes−no	UB sqrt-sp	UB sig-norm	Qwen full	Qwen LoRA	Qwen-4B LoRA
CLINC150	400	**91.8**	91.5	91.7	**91.8**	86.3	79.8	89.8
MASSIVE	400	83.7	84.5	83.8	**84.9**	76.9	68.8	83.5
Bitext	400	**99.3**	**99.3**	**99.3**	**99.3**	96.0	94.8	97.2
ReClor	400	58.9	60.7	**61.8**	59.9	57.7	51.2	72.2
LogiQA 2.0	400	52.9	54.8	55.4	54.8	**57.0**	56.0	73.5
CosmosQA	400	74.8	74.2	75.1	**75.2**	59.9	55.0	76.0
PIQA	400	74.8	**77.5**	75.9	75.1	70.2	68.8	83.8
ANLI	400	73.1	72.6	**73.9**	73.6	63.7	61.0	74.0
ProofWriter	400	60.7	61.5	61.4	61.6	**63.3**	63.0	70.5
ContractNLI	393	73.8	77.4	74.7	**78.6**	76.1	65.6	79.1
MuSiQue	400	58.9	63.0	62.2	**69.8**	62.9	54.8	71.5
QuALITY	398	56.9	**62.1**	60.8	61.3	51.5	50.0	68.8
Nimble	224	47.0	47.8	49.1	50.7	**57.3**	50.9	64.3

D Examples

The examples show the decision of the sigmoid-normalised encoder and the token scores of its evidence head for one row of each of three datasets. The rows are the first test row of each dataset in the evidence study that has at most 1,400 tokens; MuSiQue has none. Only the tokens that the head scores at or above its dev-tuned threshold of 0.79 for the chosen option are highlighted, darker for a higher probability, and tokens inside the gold evidence are underlined. The encoder chooses the correct option in all three rows; the rows were picked by the rule above and

not by outcome.

ContractNLI. 1,338 tokens. The model chooses option 1, which is **correct**. Question: Statement: "Receiving Party shall not reverse engineer any objects which embody Disclosing Party's Confidential Information." Does the contract entail the statement, contradict it, or not mention it?

k	Probability	Option	
1	85%	The contract entails the statement.	gold, chosen
2	0%	The contract contradicts the statement.	
3	15%	The contract does not mention it.	

Contract MUTUAL NONDISCLOSURE AGREEMENT Effective Date: 12/10/98 This Agreement governs the disclosure of information by and between Yahoo! Inc., a California corporation, and Restrac, Inc. ("Participant"). 1. The "Confidential Information" is that confidential, proprietary, and trade secret information being disclosed by the disclosing party described as (please be specific): (a) Yahoo Confidential Information (owned by Yahoo and any of its affiliates): Resume and Employment Related. (b) Participant Confidential Information: Resume and Employment Related. 2. Except as set forth in this Section 2, all Confidential Information shall be in tangible form and shall be marked as Confidential or proprietary information of the disclosing party. If the Confidential Information is disclosed orally or visually, it shall be identified as such at the time of disclosure and confirmed in a writing to the recipient within thirty (30) days of such disclosure. 3. Each of the parties agrees that it will not make use of, disseminate, or in any way disclose any Confidential Information of the other party to any person, firm or business, except to the extent necessary for negotiations, discussions and consultations with personnel or authorized representatives of the other party and any purpose the other party may hereafter authorize in writing. Each of the parties agrees that it shall disclose Confidential Information of the other party only to those of its employees who need to know such information and who have previously agreed, either as a condition to employment or in order to obtain the Confidential Information, to be bound by terms and conditions substantially similar to those of this Agreement. 4. There shall be no liability for disclosure or use of Confidential Information which is (a) in the public domain through no fault of the receiving party (b) rightfully received from a third party without any obligation of confidentiality, (c) rightfully known to the receiving party without any limitation on use or disclosure prior to its receipt from the disclosing party, (d) independently developed by the receiving party, (e) generally made available to third parties without any restriction on disclosure, or (f) communicated in response to a valid order by a court or other governmental body, as otherwise required by law, or as necessary to establish the rights of either party under this Agreement (provided that the party so disclosing has provided the other party with a reasonable opportunity to seek protective legal treatment for such Confidential Information). 5. "Residual Information" shall mean any Confidential Information of the disclosing party which may be retained in intangible form in the minds of those individuals of the receiving party who have had proper access to such Confidential Information. Notwithstanding anything else in this Agreement, the receiving party shall be free to use any Residual Information for any purpose whatsoever, including, without limitation, the development of its own products, provided that such party shall not be entitled to disclose Residual Information to any third parties unless such disclosure is in the course of, or as part of, any disclosure of its own products or their development. 6. Each of the parties agrees that it shall treat all Confidential Information of the other party with the same degree of care as it accords to its own Confidential Information and each of the parties represents that it exercises reasonable care to protect its own Confidential Information. 7. Each of the parties agrees that it will not modify, reverse engineer, decompile, create other works from, or disassemble any software programs contained in the Confidential Information of the other party unless otherwise specified in writing by the disclosing party. 8. All materials (including, without limitation, documents, drawings, models, apparatus, sketches, designs and lists) furnished to one party by the other, and which are designated in writing to be the property of such party, shall remain the property of such party and shall be returned to it promptly at its request, together with any copies thereof. 9. This Agreement shall govern all communications between the parties that are made during the period from the effective date of this Agreement to the date on which either party receives from the other written notice that subsequent communications shall not be so governed, provided, however that each party's obligations under Sections 2 and 3 with respect to Confidential Information of the other party which it has previously received shall continue unless and until such Confidential Information falls within Sections 4 or 5. 10. Neither party shall communicate any information to the other in violation of the proprietary rights of any third party. Neither party acquires any licenses under any intellectual property rights of the other party under this Agreement. This Agreement shall be governed in all respects by the laws of the United States of America and by the laws of the State of California as such laws are applied to agreements entered into and to be performed entirely within California between California residents. This Agreement may only be changed by mutual agreement of authorized representatives of the parties in writing. All notices or reports permitted or required under this Agreement shall be in writing and shall be by personal delivery, telegram, telex, telecopier, facsimile transmission or by certified or registered mail, return receipt requested, and shall be deemed given upon personal delivery, five (5) days after deposit in the mail, or upon acknowledgment of receipt of electronic transmission. Notices shall be sent to the addresses set forth at the end of this Agreement or such other address as either party may specify in writing. IN WITNESS WHEREOF, the parties have executed this Agreement in duplicate as of the date first written above. <TABLE> <S> <C> YAHOO! INC. ———————————— By: /s/ Matt Rowlen By: /s/ M. J. Fahey ————————————- ———————————— Printed Name: Matt Rowlen Printed Name: M. J. Fahey ———————— ———————— Title: Manager of Business Development Title: President ———————————— ———————————— Address: Yahoo! Address: Lexington, MA ———————————— ————————————- ———————————— ————————————- ———————————— ———————————— </TABLE>

Nimble. 558 tokens. The model chooses option 3, which is **correct**. Question: Apply this rubric: HIGH—route is correct, custody is intact, and the claimant supplies both a unique identifier and one undisclosed feature without a material conflict; release is permitted. MEDIUM—route is correct and the claim is plausible, but either required identifying element is missing or custody has a gap; hold for more evidence. LOW—route is wrong or a material item, date, location, or identifier conflicts; do not release. Weather, staff clothing, and similar incidental observations are distractors, not material conflicts.

k	Probability	Option	
1	6%	Do not release: LOW confidence because the route is incorrect or material facts conflict with the intake record.	
2	35%	Send to the Transit Depot Vault but hold the backpack: MEDIUM confidence because an identifying requirement is missing or custody is incomplete.	
3	60%	Send to the Transit Depot Vault and release to Mara: HIGH confidence because custody is intact and both required identifying elements match without material conflict.	gold, chosen

Context A navy canvas backpack was found on Route 18 bus 604 at 18:20 on 12 May. Transit operator Imani Cole sealed it as T-884 and delivered it to the civic hall receptionist, who transferred the unbroken seal to lost-property custodian Arun Vale without any gap in custody.

Facts The backpack sealed as T-884 was found in the transit vehicle Route 18 bus 604. The custody chain for backpack T-884 has no gap between Imani Cole sealing it and Arun Vale receiving it from the civic hall receptionist. The seal on backpack T-884 remained unbroken through Arun Vale's receipt of it. The serial patch recorded for backpack T-884 is a unique identifier for that backpack. The serial-patch value recorded for backpack T-884 in the intake log is SP-7742. Mara Venn supplied the serial-patch value SP-7742 when she filed her claim. The hidden-feature detail recorded for backpack T-884, a brass key inside a torn inner-lining pocket, was not publicly disclosed before Mara Venn supplied it. Mara Venn supplied a matching brass-key hidden-feature detail. All other material items, dates, times, locations, and identifiers Mara Venn supplied agree with the intake record.

Policy Policy routes property found in transit vehicles to the Transit Depot Vault, regardless of where it was handed in.

ProofWriter. 208 tokens. The model chooses option 1, which is **correct**. Question: Statement: "Gary is cold." Based only on the theory, is the statement true, false, or unknown?

k	Probability	Option	
1	83%	True: the theory implies the statement.	gold, chosen
2	0%	False: the theory implies that the statement is false.	
3	17%	Unknown: the theory implies neither the statement nor its negation.	

Theory Charlie is blue. Charlie is quiet. Dave is blue. Dave is cold. Dave is young. Erin is blue. Erin is quiet. Erin is white. Erin is young. Gary is cold. Gary is quiet. Gary is young. All quiet things are furry. If Charlie is cold then Charlie is young. White things are cold. All young things are nice. If Gary is nice then Gary is young. If something is young then it is nice. If something is furry and blue then it is white. If something is young and furry then it is nice.